

Principles of Programming Languages

Functional Programming

Andrei Arusoaie¹

¹Department of Computer Science

Outline

Paradigms

Outline

Paradigms

Declarative Programming
Functional Programming

Outline

Paradigms

Declarative Programming
Functional Programming

Conclusion

Paradigms

- ▶ Imperative Programming: ✓

Paradigms

- ▶ Imperative Programming: ✓
- ▶ Object Oriented Programming: ✓

Paradigms

- ▶ Imperative Programming: ✓
- ▶ Object Oriented Programming: ✓
- ▶ Declarative Programming
 - ▶ Functional Programming
 - ▶ Logic Programming

Outline

Paradigms

Declarative Programming
Functional Programming

Conclusion

General facts about PLs - I

General facts about PLs - I

- ▶ Computational model based on:
state + modifiable variable + assignment

General facts about PLs - I

- ▶ Computational model based on:
state + modifiable variable + assignment
- ▶ *Computation proceeds by modifying values stored in locations*

General facts about PLs - I

- ▶ Computational model based on:
state + modifiable variable + assignment
- ▶ *Computation proceeds by modifying values stored in locations*
- ▶ The *von Neumann Machine*

General facts about PLs - I

- ▶ Computational model based on:
state + modifiable variable + assignment
- ▶ *Computation proceeds by modifying values stored in locations*
- ▶ The *von Neumann Machine*
- ▶ Conventional PL are based on this computational model

General facts about PLs - II

- ▶ However, this is not the only possible model upon which to base a PL

General facts about PLs - II

- ▶ However, this is not the only possible model upon which to base a PL:
 - ▶ It is possible to compute without referring to a state

General facts about PLs - II

- ▶ However, this is not the only possible model upon which to base a PL:
 - ▶ It is possible to compute without referring to a state. How?

General facts about PLs - II

- ▶ However, this is not the only possible model upon which to base a PL:
 - ▶ It is possible to compute without referring to a state. How?
 - ▶ ... by rewriting expressions

General facts about PLs - II

- ▶ However, this is not the only possible model upon which to base a PL:
 - ▶ It is possible to compute without referring to a state. How?
 - ▶ ... by rewriting expressions
 - ▶ The computation is expressed in terms of modifications of the environment

General facts about PLs - II

- ▶ However, this is not the only possible model upon which to base a PL:
 - ▶ It is possible to compute without referring to a state. How?
 - ▶ ... by rewriting expressions
 - ▶ The computation is expressed in terms of modifications of the environment
 - ▶ “Pure” principles: do not modify the ‘state’; no side-effects

Functional programming: history + characteristics

- ▶ This paradigm is as old as the imperative one

Functional programming: history + characteristics

- ▶ This paradigm is as old as the imperative one
- ▶ Turing machine vs. λ -calculus (1936)
 - ▶ Church-Turing thesis

Functional programming: history + characteristics

- ▶ This paradigm is as old as the imperative one
- ▶ Turing machine vs. λ -calculus (1936)
 - ▶ Church-Turing thesis
- ▶ Ingredients: higher-order functions + recursion

Functional programming: history + characteristics

- ▶ This paradigm is as old as the imperative one
- ▶ Turing machine vs. λ -calculus (1936)
 - ▶ Church-Turing thesis
- ▶ Ingredients: higher-order functions + recursion
- ▶ PLs: Haskell, Miranda (pure) + **Lisp**, ML, Scheme, ...

Some mathematical background

- ▶ Math function: $f(x) = x^2$

Some mathematical background

- ▶ Math function: $f(x) = x^2$, where $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$

Some mathematical background

- ▶ Math function: $f(x) = x^2$, where $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$
- ▶ Math function application: $f(2)$, with result 4

Some mathematical background

- ▶ Math function: $f(x) = x^2$, where $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$
- ▶ Math function application: $f(2)$, with result 4
- ▶ But mathematicians say that they *define* $f(x)$

Some mathematical background

- ▶ Math function: $f(x) = x^2$, where $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$
- ▶ Math function application: $f(2)$, with result 4
- ▶ But mathematicians say that they *define* $f(x)$
- ▶ Indeed the *name* of the function is f

Some mathematical background

- ▶ Math function: $f(x) = x^2$, where $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$
- ▶ Math function application: $f(2)$, with result 4
- ▶ But mathematicians say that they *define* $f(x)$
- ▶ Indeed the *name* of the function is f
- ▶ ...but we distinguish the *definition* from the *application*

Some mathematical background

- ▶ Math function: $f(x) = x^2$, where $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$
- ▶ Math function application: $f(2)$, with result 4
- ▶ But mathematicians say that they *define* $f(x)$
- ▶ Indeed the *name* of the function is f
- ▶ ...but we distinguish the *definition* from the *application*, respectively:
 - ▶ f has a *formal* parameter x which indicates the *transformation* that f applies to arguments x

Some mathematical background

- ▶ Math function: $f(x) = x^2$, where $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$
- ▶ Math function application: $f(2)$, with result 4
- ▶ But mathematicians say that they *define* $f(x)$
- ▶ Indeed the *name* of the function is f
- ▶ ...but we distinguish the *definition* from the *application*, respectively:
 - ▶ f has a *formal* parameter x which indicates the *transformation* that f applies to arguments x
 - ▶ $f(x)$ is the expression that results after the transformation happens

Some mathematical background

- ▶ Math function: $f(x) = x^2$, where $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$
- ▶ Math function application: $f(2)$, with result 4
- ▶ But mathematicians say that they *define* $f(x)$
- ▶ Indeed the *name* of the function is f
- ▶ ...but we distinguish the *definition* from the *application*, respectively:
 - ▶ f has a *formal* parameter x which indicates the *transformation* that f applies to arguments x
 - ▶ $f(x)$ is the expression that results after the transformation happens
- ▶ Functions = *expressible* values

More about writing function application

- ▶ Classical: $f(2)$

More about writing function application

- ▶ Classical: $f(2)$
- ▶ Available: $(f\ 2)$ or simply $f\ 2$

More about writing function application

- ▶ Classical: $f(2)$
- ▶ Available: $(f\ 2)$ or simply $f\ 2$
- ▶ The latter notation has an advantage:

More about writing function application

- ▶ Classical: $f(2)$
- ▶ Available: $(f\ 2)$ or simply $f\ 2$
- ▶ The latter notation has an advantage:
 - ▶ Anonymous functions: $\backslash x \rightarrow x * x$ – Haskell syntax

More about writing function application

- ▶ Classical: $f(2)$
- ▶ Available: $(f\ 2)$ or simply $f\ 2$
- ▶ The latter notation has an advantage:
 - ▶ Anonymous functions: $\backslash x \rightarrow x * x$ – Haskell syntax
 - ▶ Application: $(\backslash x \rightarrow x * x)\ 2$

More about writing function application

- ▶ Classical: $f(2)$
- ▶ Available: $(f\ 2)$ or simply $f\ 2$
- ▶ The latter notation has an advantage:
 - ▶ Anonymous functions: $\backslash x \rightarrow x * x$ – Haskell syntax
 - ▶ Application: $(\backslash x \rightarrow x * x)\ 2$
 - ▶ Higher-order functions, currying, ...

(Untyped) λ - calculus

λ -terms are *variables*, *abstractions*, or *applications*:

$$\begin{array}{lcl} t & ::= & x \quad // \text{ where } x \in X \\ & | & \lambda x. t \quad // \text{ where } x \in X \text{ and } t \text{ is a } \lambda\text{-term} \\ & | & t \ s \quad // \text{ where } t \text{ and } s \text{ are } \lambda\text{-terms} \end{array}$$

Abstractions

The construction $\lambda x.t$ is called *abstraction*.

If in mathematics we define a function as below

$$f(x) = x^2 + 2$$

then in λ -calculus this function can be encoded as an abstraction:

$$\lambda x.x^2 + 2.$$

Abstractions and α -equivalence

The function $f(x) = x^2 + 2$ takes x as input and computes the square of x and adds 2.

The abstraction $\lambda x. x^2 + 2$ does the same thing, except that we do not indicate a name for the function.

Abstractions and α -equivalence

The function $f(x) = x^2 + 2$ takes x as input and computes the square of x and adds 2.

The abstraction $\lambda x. x^2 + 2$ does the same thing, except that we do not indicate a name for the function.

The abstraction operator in the term $\lambda x. t$ *binds* x , that is, in t , x is seen as an input. In $\lambda x. x^2 + 2$, the input is x and t is $x^2 + 2$.

Abstractions and α -equivalence

The function $f(x) = x^2 + 2$ takes x as input and computes the square of x and adds 2.

The abstraction $\lambda x. x^2 + 2$ does the same thing, except that we do not indicate a name for the function.

The abstraction operator in the term $\lambda x. t$ *binds* x , that is, in t , x is seen as an input. In $\lambda x. x^2 + 2$, the input is x and t is $x^2 + 2$.

Not surprisingly, $\lambda y. y^2 + 2$ denotes the *exact* same function!

Abstractions and α -equivalence

The function $f(x) = x^2 + 2$ takes x as input and computes the square of x and adds 2.

The abstraction $\lambda x. x^2 + 2$ does the same thing, except that we do not indicate a name for the function.

The abstraction operator in the term $\lambda x. t$ *binds* x , that is, in t , x is seen as an input. In $\lambda x. x^2 + 2$, the input is x and t is $x^2 + 2$.

Not surprisingly, $\lambda y. y^2 + 2$ denotes the *exact* same function!

We say that $(\lambda x. x^2 + 2$ and $\lambda y. y^2 + 2)$ are α -*equivalent*.

Applications

The construction $t\ s$, where t and s are λ -terms, is called *application*.

It is meant to represent the application of the function t to the function s .

Example: $(\lambda x.y)\ z$ – apply $(\lambda x.y)$ to z

Examples of λ -terms

- ▶ x - is a λ -term because it is a variable;

Examples of λ -terms

- ▶ x - is a λ -term because it is a variable;
- ▶ $\lambda x.x$ - it is an abstraction which represents the identity function;

Examples of λ -terms

- ▶ x - is a λ -term because it is a variable;
- ▶ $\lambda x.x$ - it is an abstraction which represents the identity function;
- ▶ $\lambda x.y$ - a function that always returns y , no matter what is the input x ;

Examples of λ -terms

- ▶ x - is a λ -term because it is a variable;
- ▶ $\lambda x.x$ - it is an abstraction which represents the identity function;
- ▶ $\lambda x.y$ - a function that always returns y , no matter what is the input x ;
- ▶ $\lambda x.(\lambda y.x)$ - a function which takes two arguments and returns the first;

Examples of λ -terms

- ▶ x - is a λ -term because it is a variable;
- ▶ $\lambda x.x$ - it is an abstraction which represents the identity function;
- ▶ $\lambda x.y$ - a function that always returns y , no matter what is the input x ;
- ▶ $\lambda x.(\lambda y.x)$ - a function which takes two arguments and returns the first;
- ▶ $(\lambda x.x) y$ - an application of the identity function $(\lambda x.x)$ to an argument y ;
Later we will see that this will evaluate to y , as expected.

Notational conventions

By default, there are no explicit parentheses in λ -terms.

However, we used parentheses in our examples (e.g., $\lambda x.(\lambda y.x)$, $(\lambda x.x) y$) to avoid ambiguities.

Notational conventions

By default, there are no explicit parentheses in λ -terms.

However, we used parentheses in our examples (e.g., $\lambda x.(\lambda y.x)$, $(\lambda x.x) y$) to avoid ambiguities.

Rule: always use parentheses when needed to avoid ambiguities.

Notational conventions

By default, there are no explicit parentheses in λ -terms.

However, we used parentheses in our examples (e.g., $\lambda x.(\lambda y.x)$, $(\lambda x.x) y$) to avoid ambiguities.

Rule: always use parentheses when needed to avoid ambiguities.

Without parentheses it is hard to say whether the λ -term

$$\lambda x.x \lambda x.y$$

represents $(\lambda x.x) (\lambda x.y)$ or $\lambda x.(x (\lambda x.y))$.

Free variables

The set of *free* variables is computed using the function $free : t \rightarrow 2^X$ defined below:

- ▶ $free(x) = \{x\};$
- ▶ $free(\lambda x.t) = free(t) \setminus \{x\};$
- ▶ $free(t\ s) = free(t) \cup free(s).$

Free variables example

The free variables of a term are the ones that are not captured by a binder. Example:

$$\begin{aligned} \text{free}\big((\lambda x.x) (\lambda x.y)\big) &= \text{free}((\lambda x.x)) \cup \text{free}((\lambda y.y)) \\ &= \big(\text{free}(x) \setminus \{x\}\big) \cup \big(\text{free}(y) \setminus \{x\}\big) \\ &= (\{x\} \setminus \{x\}) \cup (\{y\} \setminus \{x\}) \\ &= \emptyset \cup \{y\} \\ &= \{y\}. \end{aligned}$$

Note that y is not bound, so $\text{free}\big((\lambda x.x) (\lambda x.y)\big) = \{y\}$.

Bound variables

The set of *bound* variables is computed using the $bound : t \rightarrow 2^X$ function, defined as

- ▶ $bound(x) = \emptyset$;
- ▶ $bound(\lambda x.t) = bound(t) \cup \{x\}$;
- ▶ $bound(t\ s) = bound(t) \cup bound(s)$.

Bound variables example

The bound variables of a term are the ones that are captured by a binder. Example:

$$\begin{aligned} \text{bound}((\lambda x.x) (\lambda x.y)) &= \text{bound}((\lambda x.x)) \cup \text{bound}((\lambda x.y)) \\ &= (\text{bound}(x) \cup \{x\}) \cup (\text{bound}(y) \cup \{x\}) \\ &= (\emptyset \cup \{x\}) \cup (\emptyset \cup \{x\}) \\ &= \{x\} \cup \{x\} \\ &= \{x\}. \end{aligned}$$

Capturing (or non-capture avoiding) substitution

The notation $t[t'/x]$ stands for the term obtained from t by substituting t' for all free occurrences of x .

Formally, $t[t'/x]$ is defined as

1. $x[t'/x] = t'$;
2. $y[t'/x] = y$, if $y \neq x$;
3. $(\lambda x.t)[t'/x] = \lambda x.t$;
4. $(\lambda y.t)[t'/x] = \lambda y.(t[t'/x])$, if $y \neq x$;
5. $(t\ s)[t'/x] = (t[t'/x])\ (s[t'/x])$.

Capturing (or non-capture avoiding) substitution - Example

$$\begin{aligned} ((\lambda x.x) (\lambda x.y))[z/y] &= ((\lambda x.x)[z/y]) ((\lambda x.y)[z/y]) \\ &= (\lambda x.(x[z/y])) (\lambda x.(y[z/y])) \\ &= (\lambda x.x) (\lambda x.z) \end{aligned}$$

Capturing (or non-capture avoiding) substitution - Another example

$$(\lambda y.x)[z/y] = \lambda y.(x[y/x]) = \lambda y.y$$

Capturing (or non-capture avoiding) substitution - Another example

$$(\lambda y.x)[z/y] = \lambda y.(x[y/x]) = \lambda y.y$$

Problem: we started with a term which ignores its input, that is $(\lambda y.x)$ and by applying a substitution we obtain a term which does not ignore its input anymore, namely, $\lambda y.y$.

Capturing (or non-capture avoiding) substitution - Another example

$$(\lambda y.x)[z/y] = \lambda y.(x[y/x]) = \lambda y.y$$

Problem: we started with a term which ignores its input, that is $(\lambda y.x)$ and by applying a substitution we obtain a term which does not ignore its input anymore, namely, $\lambda y.y$.

Substitutions are syntactical operations, and they should not change the behaviour of λ -terms.

Capturing (or non-capture avoiding) substitution - Another example

$$(\lambda y.x)[z/y] = \lambda y.(x[y/x]) = \lambda y.y$$

Problem: we started with a term which ignores its input, that is $(\lambda y.x)$ and by applying a substitution we obtain a term which does not ignore its input anymore, namely, $\lambda y.y$.

Substitutions are syntactical operations, and they should not change the behaviour of λ -terms.

A possible fix to this problem is to use an α -equivalent version of $(\lambda y.x)$, say $(\lambda y'.x)$.

$$(\lambda y'.x)[z/y] = \lambda y'.(x[y/x]) = \lambda y'.y$$

We obtained a similar λ -term with the one we started with.

Capture-avoiding substitutions

We denote by $t[t'/x]$ the substitution that avoids capturing variables:

1. $x[t'/x] = t'$;
2. $y[t'/x] = y$, if $y \neq x$;
3. $(\lambda x.t)[t'/x] = \lambda x.t$;
4. $(\lambda y.t)[t'/x] = \lambda y'.((t[y'/y])[t'/x])$, if $y \neq x$ and y' is a fresh variable;
5. $(t\ s)[t'/x] = (t[t'/x])\ (s[t'/x])$.

Capture-avoiding substitutions - Example

$$\begin{aligned}(\lambda y.(x \ y)) \llbracket y/x \rrbracket &= \lambda y'. \left(((x \ y)[y'/y]) \llbracket y/x \rrbracket \right) \\&= \lambda y'. \left(((x[y'/y]) \ (y[y'/y])) \llbracket y/x \rrbracket \right) \\&= \lambda y'. ((x \ y') \llbracket y/x \rrbracket) \\&= \lambda y'. ((x \llbracket y/x \rrbracket) \ (y' \llbracket y/x \rrbracket)) \\&= \lambda y'. (y \ y').\end{aligned}$$

Capturing vs. Non-Capturing Substitutions

- ▶ Capturing substitution:

$$(\lambda y.x)[y/x] = \lambda y.(x[y/x]) = \lambda y.y;$$

- ▶ Capture-avoiding substitution:

$$(\lambda y.x)[[y/x]] = \lambda y'.((x[y'/y])[y/x]) = \lambda y'.(x[[y/x]]) = \lambda y'.y.$$

Alpha equivalence

In an abstraction $\lambda x.t$, if the bound variable x is replaced everywhere by a variable y (that does not occur in t) we obtain an α -equivalent form $\lambda y.t[y/x]$ of $\lambda x.t$.

Notation: $t_1 \equiv_{\alpha} t_2$ denotes the fact that t_1 and t_2 are α -equivalent.

Examples:

1. $\lambda x.x \equiv_{\alpha} \lambda y.y$;
2. $(\lambda x.x) (\lambda y.y) \equiv_{\alpha} (\lambda z.z) (\lambda y.y)$;
3. $(\lambda x.x) (\lambda y.y) \equiv_{\alpha} (\lambda z.z) (\lambda z.z)$;
4. $(\lambda x.x) (\lambda y.y) \equiv_{\alpha} (\lambda z.z) (\lambda z'.z')$;
5. $(\lambda x.x) x \equiv_{\alpha} (\lambda y.y) x$;

Beta-reduction

In λ -calculus there is only one computation rule, called β -reduction:

$$(\lambda x.t) t' \rightarrow_{\beta} t[t'/x].$$

The β -reduction rule is the rule that applies an abstraction (a function) to an argument.

The expression $(\lambda x.t) t'$ is called *redex* (i.e., the place where the β -reduction happens) and $t[t'/x]$ is called *reductum* (i.e., the reduced expression).

Beta-reduction - simple example

$$(\lambda x.x) y \rightarrow_{\beta} x[y/x] = y.$$

Here, $(\lambda x.x) y$ is the redex, while y is the reductum.

Note that $\rightarrow_{\beta}$ represents a β -reduction step, while the result of the reduction $x[y/x]$ is then computed using the definition of the capture-avoiding substitution.

Another example

$$\begin{aligned} & (\lambda f. (\lambda x. (f \ x))) (\lambda x. x) \ z \rightarrow_{\beta} & ((\lambda x. (f \ x)) \llbracket (\lambda x. x) / f \rrbracket) \ z \\ & = & (\lambda x'. (((f \ x) [x' / x]) \llbracket (\lambda x. x) / f \rrbracket)) \ z \\ & = & (\lambda x'. (((f [x' / x]) (x [x' / x])) \llbracket (\lambda x. x) / f \rrbracket)) \ z \\ & = & (\lambda x'. ((f \ x') \llbracket (\lambda x. x) / f \rrbracket)) \ z \\ & = & (\lambda x'. (f \llbracket (\lambda x. x) / f \rrbracket \ x' \llbracket (\lambda x. x) / f \rrbracket)) \ z \\ & = & (\lambda x'. ((\lambda x. x) \ x')) \ z \\ & \rightarrow_{\beta} & ((\lambda x. x) \ x') \llbracket z / x' \rrbracket \\ & = & ((\lambda x. x) \llbracket z / x' \rrbracket) (x' \llbracket z / x' \rrbracket) \\ & = & (\lambda x''. (x'' [x'' / x]) \llbracket z / x' \rrbracket) \ z \\ & = & (\lambda x''. x'' \llbracket z / x' \rrbracket) \ z \\ & = & (\lambda x''. x'') \ z \\ & \rightarrow_{\beta} & x'' \llbracket z / x'' \rrbracket \\ & = & z. \end{aligned}$$

The same example, but simplified

$$\begin{aligned} (\lambda f. (\lambda x. (f\ x))) (\lambda x. x) (\lambda y. y) &\rightarrow_{\beta} (\lambda x'. ((\lambda x. x)\ x')) (\lambda y. y) \\ &\rightarrow_{\beta} (\lambda x''. x'') (\lambda y. y) \\ &\rightarrow_{\beta} (\lambda y. y). \end{aligned}$$

Normal forms

When a λ -term t cannot be reduced (the β -reduction rule cannot be applied) anymore, we say that t is in *normal form*.

Normal forms

When a λ -term t cannot be reduced (the β -reduction rule cannot be applied) anymore, we say that t is in *normal form*.

For instance, $\lambda x.(\lambda y.x)$ is in normal form, while $\lambda x.((\lambda y.x) z)$ is not in normal form, because:

$$\lambda x.((\lambda y.x) z) \rightarrow_{\beta} \lambda x.(x[z/y]) = \lambda x.x.$$

Now, $\lambda x.x$ is a normal form for $\lambda x.((\lambda y.x) z)$.

Normal forms

When a λ -term t cannot be reduced (the β -reduction rule cannot be applied) anymore, we say that t is in *normal form*.

For instance, $\lambda x.(\lambda y.x)$ is in normal form, while $\lambda x.((\lambda y.x) z)$ is not in normal form, because:

$$\lambda x.((\lambda y.x) z) \rightarrow_{\beta} \lambda x.(x[z/y]) = \lambda x.x.$$

Now, $\lambda x.x$ is a normal form for $\lambda x.((\lambda y.x) z)$.

Not all lambda terms have a normal form. For example, the sequence

$$(\lambda x.(x x)) (\lambda x.(x x)) \rightarrow_{\beta} (\lambda x.(x x)) (\lambda x.(x x)) \rightarrow_{\beta} \dots$$

is infinite.

Evaluation strategies

Sometimes the β -reduction rule can be applied in several locations under a lambda term.

Example: what is the normal form of $(\lambda x.x) ((\lambda y.y) z)$?

Evaluation strategies

Sometimes the β -reduction rule can be applied in several locations under a lambda term.

Example: what is the normal form of $(\lambda x.x) ((\lambda y.y) z)$?

There are two possible ways of finding it:

1. $(\lambda x.x) ((\lambda y.y) z) \rightarrow_{\beta} (\lambda y.y) z \rightarrow z$, or
2. $(\lambda x.x) ((\lambda y.y) z) \rightarrow_{\beta} (\lambda x.x) z \rightarrow z$.

Evaluation strategies

Sometimes the β -reduction rule can be applied in several locations under a lambda term.

Example: what is the normal form of $(\lambda x.x) ((\lambda y.y) z)$?

There are two possible ways of finding it:

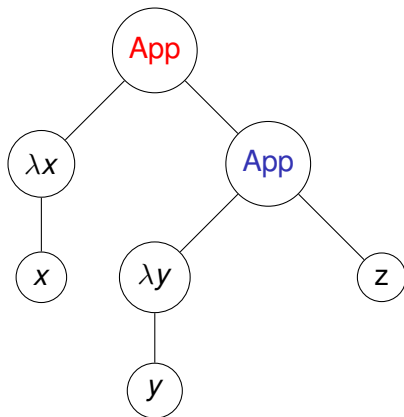
1. $(\lambda x.x) ((\lambda y.y) z) \rightarrow_{\beta} (\lambda y.y) z \rightarrow z$, or
2. $(\lambda x.x) ((\lambda y.y) z) \rightarrow_{\beta} (\lambda x.x) z \rightarrow z$.

Which one should we choose?

Fact: the evaluation strategies that are used to apply the β -reduction rule may impact the performance.

Abstract trees for λ -terms

Abstract tree of $(\lambda x.x) ((\lambda y.y) z)$:



Full-beta reduction

This strategy is more like a *no strategy* to apply β -reductions.
Any of the previous reductions

1. $(\lambda x.x) ((\lambda y.y) z) \rightarrow_{\beta} (\lambda y.y) z \rightarrow z$, or
2. $(\lambda x.x) ((\lambda y.y) z) \rightarrow_{\beta} (\lambda x.x) z \rightarrow z$.

are allowed by the full-beta reduction strategy.

Normal order

This strategy says that the leftmost, outermost redex is reduced first.

In our example, there is only one possible reduction:

$$(\lambda x.x) ((\lambda y.y) z) \rightarrow_{\beta} (\lambda y.y) z \rightarrow z$$

Normal order

This strategy says that the leftmost, outermost redex is reduced first.

In our example, there is only one possible reduction:

$$(\lambda x.x) ((\lambda y.y) z) \rightarrow_{\beta} (\lambda y.y) z \rightarrow z$$

This strategy allows exactly one successor (up to α -equivalence) for any given lambda term.

Normal order

This strategy says that the leftmost, outermost redex is reduced first.

In our example, there is only one possible reduction:

$$(\lambda x.x) ((\lambda y.y) z) \rightarrow_{\beta} (\lambda y.y) z \rightarrow z$$

This strategy allows exactly one successor (up to α -equivalence) for any given lambda term.

Also, normal-order is a *non-strict* evaluation strategy because it does not require that the arguments of an abstraction (function) are evaluated before β -reduction.

Call-by-name (CBN)

CBN is a restricted version of normal-order where applications of the β -reduction rule inside an abstraction is forbidden.

Call-by-name (CBN)

CBN is a restricted version of normal-order where applications of the β -reduction rule inside an abstraction is forbidden.

► Call-by-name:

$$\begin{aligned} (\lambda z.z) \lambda x.((\lambda y.y) x) &\rightarrow_{\beta} \\ \lambda x.((\lambda y.y) x) &\not\rightarrow_{\beta} . \end{aligned}$$

Call-by-name (CBN)

CBN is a restricted version of normal-order where applications of the β -reduction rule inside an abstraction is forbidden.

► Call-by-name:

$$\begin{aligned} (\lambda z.z) \lambda x.((\lambda y.y) x) &\rightarrow_{\beta} \\ \lambda x.((\lambda y.y) x) &\not\rightarrow_{\beta} . \end{aligned}$$

► Normal-order:

$$\begin{aligned} (\lambda z.z) \lambda x.((\lambda y.y) x) &\rightarrow_{\beta} \\ \lambda x.((\lambda y.y) x) &\rightarrow_{\beta} \\ \lambda x.x. & \end{aligned}$$

In the latter, the β -reduction inside a λ -abstraction is allowed.

Call-by-name: advantages

$$(\lambda x. (\lambda y. y)) \left((\lambda z. z) \lambda x. ((\lambda y. y) x) \right) \rightarrow_{\beta} \lambda y. y,$$

CBN is very efficient in this example: $\lambda y. y$ is the only successor here, and there is no need to evaluate the argument $((\lambda z. z) \lambda x. ((\lambda y. y) x))$.

Call-by-name: disadvantages

$$\begin{aligned} & (\lambda x.(x\ x))\ ((\lambda z.z)\ \lambda x.((\lambda y.y)\ x)) \rightarrow_{\beta} \\ & ((\lambda z.z)\ \lambda x.((\lambda y.y)\ x))\ ((\lambda z.z)\ \lambda x.((\lambda y.y)\ x)) \rightarrow_{\beta} \\ & (\lambda x.((\lambda y.y)\ x))\ ((\lambda z.z)\ \lambda x.((\lambda y.y)\ x)) \rightarrow_{\beta} \\ & (\lambda y.y)\ ((\lambda z.z)\ \lambda x.((\lambda y.y)\ x)) \rightarrow_{\beta} \\ & (\lambda z.z)\ \lambda x.((\lambda y.y)\ x) \rightarrow_{\beta} \\ & \lambda x.((\lambda y.y)\ x) \not\rightarrow_{\beta} . \end{aligned}$$

Because in $\lambda x.(x\ x)$ the input x is used twice, whatever input is passed to this function will be evaluated twice.

Call-by-value (CBV)

CBV: reduce the leftmost, innermost redex which is not inside a lambda abstraction.

The arguments of a function are completely evaluated to *values* first, and then the function is called on those values. This is the most common approach in the mainstream languages.

- Call-by-value example:

$$\begin{aligned} (\lambda f.f) \left(((\lambda z.z) \lambda x.((\lambda y.y) x)) \right) &\rightarrow_{\beta} \\ (\lambda f.f) \left(\lambda x.((\lambda y.y) x) \right) &\rightarrow_{\beta} \\ \lambda x.((\lambda y.y) x) &\not\rightarrow_{\beta} . \end{aligned}$$

CBN vs CBV

► Call-by-name:

$$\begin{aligned}(\lambda f.f) \left((\lambda z.z) \lambda x.((\lambda y.y) x) \right) &\rightarrow_{\beta} \\(\lambda z.z) \lambda x.((\lambda y.y) x) &\rightarrow_{\beta} \\ \lambda x.((\lambda y.y) x) &\not\rightarrow_{\beta} .\end{aligned}$$

Recall that the β -reduction rule inside a lambda abstraction is forbidden and the arguments are not evaluated before applying functions.

► Call-by-value:

$$\begin{aligned}(\lambda f.f) \left((\lambda z.z) \lambda x.((\lambda y.y) x) \right) &\rightarrow_{\beta} \\(\lambda f.f) \left(\lambda x.((\lambda y.y) x) \right) &\rightarrow_{\beta} \\ \lambda x.((\lambda y.y) x) &\not\rightarrow_{\beta} .\end{aligned}$$

CBV vs CBN - continued

Sometimes CBV performs a smaller number of steps than CBN:

$$\begin{aligned} (\lambda x.(x\ x))\ ((\lambda z.z)\ \lambda x.((\lambda y.y)\ x)) &\rightarrow_{\beta} \\ (\lambda x.(x\ x))\ (\lambda x.((\lambda y.y)\ x)) &\rightarrow_{\beta} \\ \lambda x.((\lambda y.y)\ x) &\not\rightarrow_{\beta} . \end{aligned}$$

CBV vs CBN - continued

Sometimes CBV performs a smaller number of steps than CBN:

$$\begin{aligned}(\lambda x.(x\ x))\ ((\lambda z.z)\ \lambda x.((\lambda y.y)\ x)) &\rightarrow_{\beta} \\(\lambda x.(x\ x))\ (\lambda x.((\lambda y.y)\ x)) &\rightarrow_{\beta} \\ \lambda x.((\lambda y.y)\ x) &\not\rightarrow_{\beta} .\end{aligned}$$

However, CBV can yield useless evaluations:

$$\begin{aligned}(\lambda x.(\lambda y.y))\ ((\lambda z.z)\ \lambda x.((\lambda y.y)\ x)) &\rightarrow_{\beta} \\(\lambda x.(\lambda y.y))\ (\lambda x.((\lambda y.y)\ x)) &\rightarrow_{\beta} \\ \lambda y.y.\end{aligned}$$

CBN terminates in just a single step on this example!

Functional programming in Haskell

- ▶ Integers, Booleans
- ▶ Types
- ▶ Lists: head, tail, reverse, sum, infinite lists
- ▶ Lazy evaluation: examples using functions on infinite lists
- ▶ Higher-order functions: map, foldl
- ▶ Quicksort

Bibliography/Q&A

Please refer to: Chapter 11:

<https://link.springer.com/content/pdf/10.1007/978-1-84882-914-5.pdf?pdf=button> for other details and interesting features:

1. local environment
2. types
3. pattern matching
4. infinite objects.

Questions?